Yale University
EliScholar – A Digital Platform for Scholarly Publishing at Yale

The Politic | Yale University Publications

11-1983

Yale Political Monthly 1983 November

The Politic, Inc.

Follow this and additional works at: http://elischolar.library.yale.edu/politic

 Part of the American Politics Commons, International Relations Commons, Policy Design, Analysis, and Evaluation Commons, Policy History, Theory, and Methods Commons, Political Theory Commons, Public Affairs Commons, and the Public Policy Commons

Recommended Citation
The Politic, Inc., "Yale Political Monthly 1983 November" (1983). *The Politic*. 13.
http://elischolar.library.yale.edu/politic/13

This Yale Political Monthly is brought to you for free and open access by the Yale University Publications at EliScholar – A Digital Platform for Scholarly Publishing at Yale. It has been accepted for inclusion in The Politic by an authorized administrator of EliScholar – A Digital Platform for Scholarly Publishing at Yale. For more information, please contact elischolar@yale.edu.

Yale Political Monthly

Volume Five Number One November 1983

A Matter of Honor

A Conversation with Yale's Vasily Rudich

YALE UNIVERSITY LIBRARY
10 1986
PERIODICAL READING ROOM

3

A Sport for the Rich

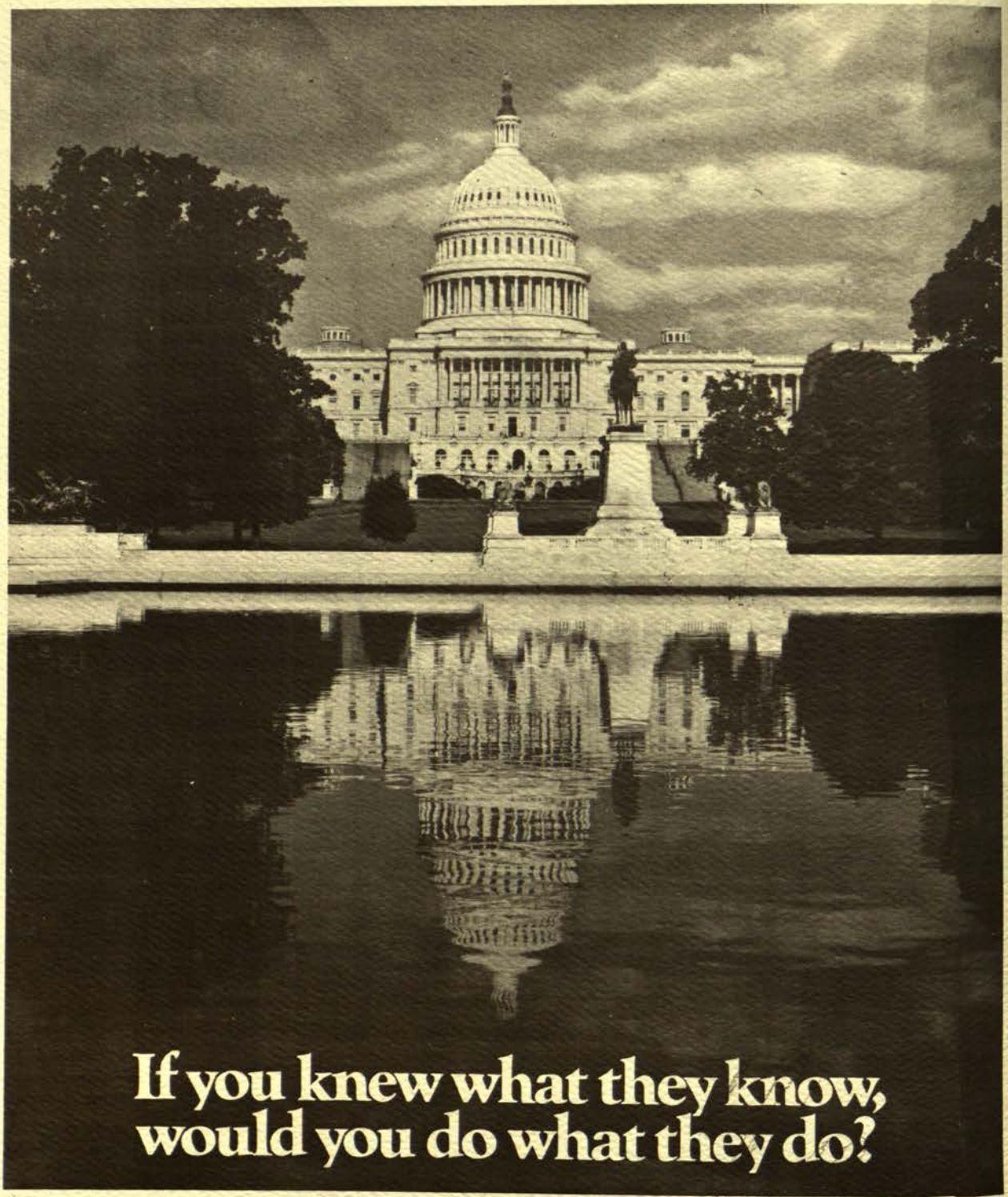
Michael Gordy

The Strategic Exclusion of Israel

Gideon G. Rose

Why Nonalignment Failed

Fareed R. Zakaria



If you knew what they know, would you do what they do?

Here's your chance to learn about eight key foreign policy issues...and express your views on them to national policy makers.

The Foreign Policy Association—a nonpartisan educational organization—has just published *Great Decisions '83*. It gives you special insight into the outlook for U.S.-Soviet coexistence, the spread of nuclear weapons, and other vital questions world leaders have to deal with.

Order your copy now. It includes special ballots on all the issues. FPA will make sure government leaders hear where you stand.

GREAT DECISIONS

☐ Please send me_____copies of *Great Decisions '83*. I enclose $6.00 plus 70¢ postage and handling for each copy. (Please enclose check with your order, payable to Foreign Policy Association.)

☐ Please send me information on FPA and Great Decisions activities in my community.

Mail to: Foreign Policy Association, Dept. A, 205 Lexington Avenue, New York, N.Y. 10016

Name_____
(please print)

Address_____

City_____ State_____ Zip_____

Yale Political Monthly

Vol. 5 No. 1 November 1983

A Matter of Honor 4
A Conversation with Yale's Vasily Rudich

A Sport for the Rich 14
Michael Gordy

The Strategic Exclusion of Israel 17
Gideon G. Rose

Why Nonalignment Failed 20
Fareed R. Zakaria

Editor-in-Chief
Gideon G. Rose

Publisher
Carmen Dixon

Managing Editor
Christopher Beall

Associate Editors
Michael Gordy
Orde Kittrie
Scott M. Kline
Adam L. Stock

Associate Publisher
Robert Ultan

Board of Directors

William P. Bundy
Donald Kagan
Edward Lazarus
Adam Myerson
Jane Isay
Robert W. Kagan
Mark Lilla
Joseph B. Rose
Roger Starr

The purpose of the YPM is to promote informed debate and reasoned discussion. We espouse no one set of beliefs, but rather print articles which represent a wide range of political opinion. The views expressed in the YPM are those of the contributors and do not necessarily express the views or positions of the staff, the Board of Directors, or Yale University.

We encourage responses and will print all thoughtful and well-written letters with appropriate authorial response in the hope of stimulating continued dialogue on campus. All written material should be submitted to the Editor or mailed to the *Yale Political Monthlyl*. Students wishing to join the staff of the YPM should contact the Editor at 432-0967.

The Yale Political Monthly is a non-profit organization. Individual subscriptions are available for $10.00, institutional subscriptions for $15.00. for five issues.

The YPM mailing address is:
The *Yale Political Monthly*
962 Yale Station
New Haven, CT 06520

ISSN 0736-6175

MSS & Archives
Y315
+P75
5

A Matter of Honor

A Conversation with Yale's Vasily Rudich

Born in 1949 in Bulgaria and at the age of eight months brought to Leningrad, Vasily Rudich was graduated from Leningrad State University in 1972, where he majored in ancient history. Unable to find work because of his activism for human rights, he emigrated to the United States in March 1975. A graduate student at Yale since 1976, he is currently an acting instructor in the Classics Department.

YPM: Mr. Rudich, your road to Yale has been very different from that of many of your colleagues. Why are you here today and how did you come here?

Rudich: When I arrived as a political refugee in 1975, I came initially to Boston, but I had a very dear friend at Yale, a professor in the Slavic Department, who invited me to visit him. Yale was the first [Western] university that I had seen in my life and I fell in love with it immediately. In the Soviet Union even in your wildest dream you cannot imagine an institution like Yale. So when I saw this place, Beinecke Library and all the facilities, and the mere possibility of taking a hundred books home, etc., I said to myself that I would try to do my best to get here.

YPM: You said you came as a political refugee to the United States, and now you're a Classics professor. How do the two mix?

Rudich: I always thought of myself as a future scholar, if I had the stamina and capacity. I never thought of myself as a politician in the Soviet Union, nor that politics would be my vocation. But in Russia, even if you are doing classics, you cannot escape confrontation with ideological enforcement. I was in my second year of university writing a paper on the development of the imperial administration under Claudius, when I came into conflict with the authorities. They had discovered something in my paper that they called "uncontrollable subtext." That is, they found an association with Soviet power. I had no idea that it might be interpreted in this way. It was simply something the Romans called the "right of recommendation": that every candidate for an office should first be recommended by the emperor, and the populace presumably would vote for this person, since the elections were under the control of the Praetorian Guard. They found a parallel with the Soviet situation, and suggested that I remove this passage. I refused because I already had some idea about the honor of a scholar, and a scandal resulted.

That was the first step in the direction of dissidence. But the real trouble happened in 1971, when a friend of mine was arrested, and I refused to cooperate with the authorities. From that moment they began to persecute *me*, so I became a kind of a dissident against my own will. It became a matter of honor: if your friend asks you to do something—you do it, otherwise you lose your self-esteem. Gradually I became more involved in the movement for human rights, led by Andrei Sakharov, and had many friends in dissident circles both in Leningrad and Moscow. At a certain point the authorities suggested I get out, and after long deliberation I decided to emigrate.

As far as history is concerned I am a Presentist. I think that the main purpose of studying history is to get lessons for our social, psychological, philosophical, and moral orientation. For me, to study Roman history is to approach some kind of truth as far as Roman history is concerned, and to derive lessons about our present situation in the world.

YPM: What is the subject of your dissertation?

Rudich: *Political Dissidence Under Nero.*

YPM: And you taught a seminar last year comparing the tyrannies of Stalin and Nero?

Rudich: It was a college seminar in Morse called *Rome Under Nero as a Case Study in Dissidence and Oppression.* Of thirteen classes ten were devoted to Rome, and three were devoted to the situation in the Soviet Union.

YPM: Could you pursue that study in Russia?

Rudich: Oh no, it was absolutely impossible; even a topic like this was out of the question. The prerequisite condition in the Soviet Union is that in all your work you make many references to Marx and Lenin and even, in my time, Brezhnev. The ideological framework is completely inflexible.

YPM: And most academicians accept this?

Rudich: Nobody believes in Communism or in Marxism, but people are forced to accept it because their personal situations depend on it. They have children, wives, families, careers, so they comply, and the result is a kind of "double-think," or worse. People act in one way, speak in another way, and think in a third.

YPM: You said that you were asked to emigrate. Is that usual?

Rudich: My story is a bit peculiar in this respect. A coincidence enabled me to escape a real predicament when my dissident activity became quite bothersome from the authorities' point of view. In 1972 I was in a hospital for a medical examination, and the doctors diagnosed incurable kidney disease, nephritis, saying that I was going

to die in two years. I really believed this was true, but a very prominent physician who examined me privately found out that the diagnosis was total nonsense. A year later, because of my dissidence, the KGB brought me to their headquarters and said that if I would not cooperate with them they would start criminal proceedings under Article 70, anti-Soviet propaganda. I told them "You know that I am deathly sick, so if you will not let me go in peace, my friends and I will write to the International Red Cross, to the United Nations, to UNESCO, to the American Congress, to say that in the Soviet Union even those who are going to die are not permitted to die peacefully." They made an enquiry at the hospital, and found the report that said I was really sick and was going to die. So they let me go. But when one year passed, and a second, and I was still enjoying good health, they began to worry about what was going on. I was continuing with those dissident activities, and at a certain point when I was forced to go into hiding they summoned my girlfriend and asked her what I was going to do. She said that she didn't know and they said "He should get out of the country as soon as he can," so I applied for an exit visa. I think they behaved that way because they still were not sure whether I was sick or not, and it was 1975, the peak of Detente, the Jackson Amendment, all sorts of noise being made about human rights, and the Helsinki Agreement and so on. To have a scandal like this, if I really did prove to be sick and die and so on, might be very embarassing.

YPM: Did your friends share this fate, or are they still in



the Soviet Union?

Rudich: Some of them managed to emigrate, during those years when emigration was possible, but many of them are still there, and one of my very close friends was arrested in June of last year and sentenced to five years of concentration camp and three years of exile.

YPM: And you still have family back in the Soviet Union?

Rudich: Yes.

YPM: Is mail possible and frequent?

Rudich: The Soviet authorities open every single letter which goes to and from the country, so one must be very careful to write things that won't harm the person who receives the letter. I decided after the Afghanistan invasion that every letter written by me can cause some harm, and at a certain point my friends will find themselves in trouble. But there are ways to send letters, through diplomatic channels, so from time to time it works, but very rarely.

YPM: Have you found differences between Leningrad State University and Yale?

Rudich: Oh yes, a lot of differences, both positive and negative. The positive difference of course, is that in this country there is no ideological restriction. In the Soviet Union, one third of our time in the university was spent on nonsense, i.e. the so-called Marxist disciplines, and they were mandatory. You have to spend two years and a half studying the so-called history of the Communist Party of the Soviet Union, which is a total fake from the first line to the last. Then you should spend a year studying historical materialism, dialectical materialism, so-called scientific communism, so-called scientific atheism, the political economy of socialism, the fundamentals of Soviet society, and the rest of this nonsense.

It really is a kind of brain-washing. It sticks in your mouth and you feel complete nausea. I hated it. On the positive side, there are obligatory subjects. If you are an historian, you specialize from the very first year of your university time; everyone enters a specific division. I entered the historical division, knowing that I wanted to do ancient history. You study all kinds of history. There will be obligatory courses on pre-history, ancient history, Medieval history, modern history, Oriental history, Slavic history, and so on. Those who became historians had a great horizon. They really knew all the facts. Interpretations, of course, were fallacious, because they were based on Marxist ideology.

YPM: But the facts were taught straight?

Rudich: Yes. At least the facts, you know, in ancient and Medieval history. Very modern history was distorted even in the facts. They do not tell you the true things about the Stalin years, about the Hitler-Stalin alliance. But up till 1917, the facts are reasonably accurate. Here, I find that the education is in some sense fragmentary. Students get the ideas of different periods, but don't have a coherent vision of the historical process. The same is true in literature. I find that the combination of something obligatory and something arbitrary would be quite welcome: students would be able to view not only certain small parts of the whole curriculum but have a broader vision, which I think is important.

YPM: Were the professors in the Soviet Union similar to professors here?

Rudich: Oh, of course not. Most of the professors in the Soviet Union are very nasty characters, because to become a professor you have to make all sorts of political compromises and generally speaking it is a journey over the corpses of your colleagues. You cannot compare relations between professors and students here which are warm and friendly and full of mutual commitment with the situation in the Soviet Union, where it is virtually impossible to have even a friendly chat with a professor.

YPM: If the professors are so bad, and much of the interpretation is distorted, how can students grow up with a real understanding of events and a perspective on their system?

Rudich: That's an interesting question. There is a real discrepancy between what the young people read in books and are taught in school, and what they experience in everyday life. For example, in school they will be taught that theirs is the most progressive society in the world, with the highest material level, but in the stores they will not be able to buy meat. This kind of discrepancy is apparent and self-evident, and the young people

begin to worry. As a rule they lack information as to what is going on, so frequently working class kids or kids from the country come to the university more or less believing in the regime. But when they get access to information, trouble begins. Because if you read Lenin carefully, you find an enormous gap between what Lenin says and what you find in actual life. If you proceed from Lenin to Marx, you find an enormous gap between what Marx says and what Lenin says, and if you proceed from Marx to Hegel and the others, you see an even greater gap.

Quite frequently the journey ends with Jesus Christ, who of course is incompatible with Lenin. Thus, many young people who enter the university as supporters of the general Communist idea very quickly become passionate and committed dissidents. It can happen in a few months, just when they get information. They close libraries, and they publish books, even classical Russian literature, in such small quantity that it is impossible to buy them in the bookstores. Since the libraries are closed, the only way to buy the books is off the black market, and that is very expensive and difficult. There is a real obscurantist trend to prevent people from reading.

YPM: If people don't read, what do they do in their spare time?

Rudich: Well, they drink, as a rule, and watch television.

YPM: What sort of programming is on television?

Rudich: All sorts of ideological propaganda, nothing especially interesting—and sports. Soviet citizens are very happy to watch all kinds of games and sports and competition.

YPM: You mentioned Jesus Christ before. Are you a religious man?

Rudich: Yes, I am a Roman Catholic. I was brought up as an atheist, but converted to Catholicism when I was still in Russia. There is such pressure on and persecution of the church that when I tried to get baptized in the Catholic Church in Leningrad a very old priest told me that there would be big trouble if my baptism was registered. When I told him that I was forced to emigrate, he told me "Go to the Holy City. That is the place to get baptized." So I left for Italy and was baptized there in 1975.



YPM: The Soviet system is hostile to religion in general?

Rudich: Very much so. You see, the Orthodox Church, the Moscow Patriarchate, is three quarters infiltrated by the KGB. The church still functions, but people are distrustful because they don't know what will happen to them or who their priests are. From time to time, however, courageous priests show up and become very popular. There is an enormous appeal for the young people in religion, very many of them convert, but if, for instance, you are noticed in church, you may be expelled from the university. If you are expelled from the university and you are male, you go to the army.

YPM: Is it any worse for Soviet Jews?

Rudich: Yes, much worse; I think the Jews are in the worst situation. I am myself, on my mother's side, a Jew, and I confronted anti-Semitism repeatedly in different shapes. First of all, the synagogues don't enjoy even the relative freedom that the Orthodox churches enjoy. Synagogues do exist, but they are repeatedly raided, by the police, by the KGB, and there is virtually no way to follow the Mosaic law, because there is no distinction between kosher and unkosher food. Second, anti-Semitism is governmental policy: Jewry in the Soviet Union is not a religious concept but an ethnic concept.

There is a so-called internal passport in the Soviet Union and in it there is a special paragraph about ethnic origin. If it is written "Jew," virtually every road is closed to you. Jews are not accepted at universities. At all. Nowadays I have heard that there are special questionnaires distributed to would-be students in which they have to indicate the ethnic origin of their grandfathers and grandmothers. For Jews the only way to get higher education is to go to some technical institute, or medical school, because they are supposed to be good physicians.

But in the Soviet Union, medicine is the worst paid profession. Doctors' salaries are three or four times less than any worker's. [If you don't get into a university,] one year after graduation from high school you go into the army for two or three years. And the Soviet Army is not the American Army. It thoroughly and pervasively destroys the human personality. Many of my friends went through the army, and came back different people. They couldn't continue any kind of education; they were really broken down. It is a horrible situation for Jews. And it is the same with employment. A Jew never will get a good job. It is out of the question, impossible. In the Soviet Union the state is the only employer. One of my friends who is a Jew called many, many different organizations to get a job, and he would ask, "Are you taking Jews? Are you hiring Jews?" And they answered "No," quite blatantly.

YPM: What is the perception of America by the average Soviet citizen?

Rudich: During detente, Americans were regarded as more or less friendly. Nixon-Brezhnev meetings, visits, summits, and the rest. Nowadays people say that the propaganda is wild and quite atrocious, and that people really believe that the Americans are their greatest enemies who are going to destroy them. It is very difficult to resist the Soviet propaganda as far as foreign policy is concerned. There is no way to learn things as they are. Western broadcasts are jammed, very few people can listen to them, and if you read the newspapers you become scared, because they talk about war, war, and war—especially now.

YPM: Were you surprised when you came to America and found out what we were really like?
Rudich: Since I had been in dissident circles for quite a while I had read a lot of American literature. Still I have to say that to some extent I was surprised. For me America was a country of skyscrapers and cowboys, and a place like Yale was a great revelation.
YPM: Some, like Solzhenitsyn, after coming here have been dissatisfied with some of the trends in the West. Were you disappointed in anything you found here?
Rudich: No, I haven't been disappointed. I realize that this country has many problems, but I also know that those problems *in principle* can be solved, because it is an open society. There can be a struggle for their solution, but they are solvable in principle. But in the Soviet Union, worse problem are not solvable in principle, because the society is closed. I find some shortcomings here, but the advantages are overwhelming.
YPM: What sort of shortcomings?
Rudich: Before I talk about the shortcomings, I want to say that I do not want to be seen as one of many Russians with an anti-American complex. On the contrary, my foremost feeling about the U.S. is profound gratitude. My criticism is not the criticism of an outsider, but of one who tries to apply his previous experiences to the enjoyable challenges of a new society. This does not mean that I try to forget my motherland. The longer I am here and the more I appreciate the wonderful things here, the more conscious I am of my inherent Russianness. But it is the great Russia of Pushkin and Akhmatova, not Andropov's Soviet Union. So. The shortcomings.

I hope no one will be offended. First there is a problem of culture, and of commitment to culture. Partly it is because in this country anything is accessible. You enter a bookstore and there are thousands of books, and you are at a loss about how to choose one. In the Soviet Union, where books are not accessible at all, every new book, if it is good, is a sensation. People will spend sleepless nights just standing in line to get the book. There is a passionate commitment to all cultural and spiritual things. Every new cultural or spiritual event is an explosion of emotions, an explosion of passions. People's lives consist of this. If people get together, even those not in intellectual circles, they talk about literature, philosophy, art, and so on.

In this country I find that people read very little, and of the books they read many of them are very low level. They prefer to watch television, which I find quite destructive, because the reading habit is disappearing, and the primary and secondary education I find unsatisfactory. High school students simply don't know even elementary things. Even such a simple thing as geography is not taught well. In one class here I read in an examination that the action of Aeschylus' *Persians* took place in Constantinople. When I was in the bank a few days ago sending money to a friend in Vienna, the girl who was in the International Division of the bank asked me "Is Austria a part of Italy?" That could never happen in the Soviet Union. In the Soviet Union the average high school student knows many more facts than the average American high school student. I find it very puzzling, and extremely upsetting.
YPM: Western educators have commented on the greater emphasis on science in Soviet schools. Do you find this true?
Rudich: I don't know the level of mathematics here, because you know it is not my field, but I can certainly say that they are better prepared in the humanities.
YPM: Here?
Rudich: No, in the Soviet Union. *If* you dismiss the ideological distortion. In science, I really don't know.
YPM: You've said that the professors are very different there. Are the students different in their attitudes towards the material?
Rudich: I find that here students are spendid, as a rule. I don't know other universities, but I find that Yale students are extremely enthusiastic and curious and mentally healthy, as opposed to the Soviet students. In the Soviet Union students have double-think imposed on them from the very beginning, and it results in all sorts of psychological torment, and can even result in some kind of insanity.

Here, of course, there is nothing like that. When I look at Yale students I am profoundly envious, and think that my life would have been quite different if I had spent four years at a young age at a place like Yale. I think that American kids don't realize how happy they are. But they shouldn't be afraid of challenges, because life consists of challenges.

It is bewildering to me when someone's failure on an exam results in a nervous breakdown. When you suffer in defeat, it should be a stimulus for further attempts at victory. In this country people are accustomed to a very easy way of life, and they consciously or not avoid challenges. I feel this is a wrong perception of reality, and that students should try to choose the most difficult way, not the easiest.
YPM: We've talked about Soviet attitudes towards America. What do you think of American attitudes towards the Soviet Union?
Rudich: I think that Americans don't know Russia at all. There are all sorts of cliches in the newspapers, and nobody pays attention to those cliches. On the other hand there is a distrust of the unpleasant things which emigres from the Soviet Union say about it. Here I find a main concern is something I would call psychological comfort. People really want to feel nice, and if things are sad, or psychologically uncomfortable, such as that in the Soviet Union during the 50 years after the Revolution from 40 to 60 million people were destroyed physically, such as that every step of yours is watched over there, and that you cannot talk without the telephone being tapped, people are reluctant to believe them.

At one of the first parties I attended in this country I was saying something about Russia and someone asked



"Is it really true that under Stalin more people were killed than under Franco?" and I thought "My God! It is incomparable! It is simply incomparable! We are talking about *millions* who perished under Stalin. Those two things cannot even be compared." But many Americans are reluctant to disrupt their psychological comfort and they simply throw out information which is unpleasant to them, because it shows that human beings can be really nasty, really evil, while they are accustomed to think of themselves as nice.

YPM: Have you found this true even of your colleagues at Yale?

Rudich: Well, to some extent I think it is better now because there are so many more Russians at Yale and the truth about the Soviet Union is gradually being revealed. But when I came to this country it really puzzled me. People didn't even want to listen to what I was saying. They really thought that because I was a dissident, because I was harmed, I was inventing things. They preferred to believe Mr. Brezhnev than me who had seen those things with my own eyes.

YPM: What have been your reactions to the American political system?

Rudich: I am a great admirer of the American Constitution.

YPM: Are you surprised by the debates that go on—for example, what do you think of the American peace movement?

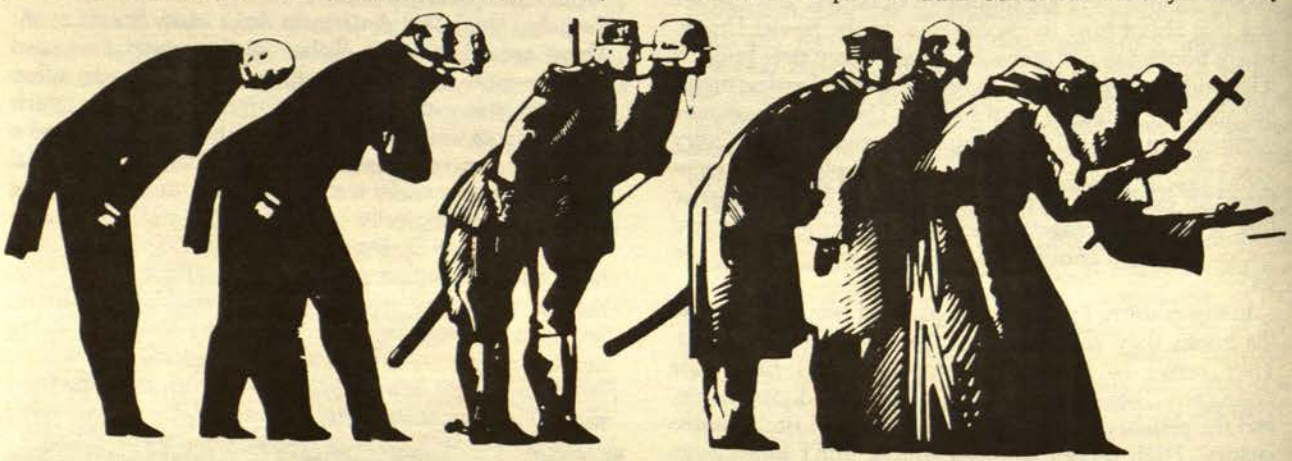
Rudich: Everyone wants peace, and I want peace no less than anyone else. The problem is, however, that the peace movement can be efficient only if the other side will permit the same kind of peace movement. If in the Soviet Union it would be possible to have an unofficial peace movement, pacifists who would act on their own, that would be fine. Then both sides would have a peace movement. But you should know that the Soviet pacifists were arrested by the Soviet government and put in prison. The group of independent pacifists was uprooted completely last year, so now all peace demonstrations in the Soviet Union are organized by the authorities with their only goal being to deceive world public opinion. What is going on here is an appeal for a kind of unilateral disarmament, which I find suicidal.

YPM: Many Americans interpret Soviet behavior as basically defensive, a reaction to World War II, a drive for security. Is this true, or is this behavior really aggressive?

Rudich: Of course I think this is not true. How can you explain from this point of view the invasion of Afghanistan? Did the Soviet Union perceive any threat from Afghanistan? That is nonsense. The Soviet Union would like very much to conquer the whole world but they realize that they simply do not have enough power. As long as the United States exists, they do not have the power to conquer the whole world. Communist doctrine presupposes the conquest of mankind, after all, and they are always trying to do it. [Laughter] That's really a fine idea, that its all a defensive reaction to World War II, when after World War II they conquered half of Europe! And from there they penetrated into Africa, and they penetrated into Southeast Asia, and they conquered Afghanistan, and now they are making trouble in Central America. Still, I don't believe that they really are confident that they can conquer to world. What I do believe is that their mentality is the mentality of petty thieves, that is, to steal the piece of pie which is not watched at the moment. For example, Afghanistan. There was a crisis in Iran. Nobody cared about Afghanistan at that point so they just used their opportunity and swallowed it. And they will do the same sort of thing, make little local troubles throughout the whole world, just to increase tensions.

YPM: Much debate is going on now over Central America, with one side saying that it is primarily Soviet interference which is causing problems, another side saying that it is primarily domestic troubles, and a third saying that it is a combination. What do you think?

Rudich: I think the situation in Central America is extremely complex, and perhaps even desperate. I have no doubt that there are enormous domestic problems in Central America, social problems, political problems, etc. That is a part of Latin American history. Military dictatorships were a feature of Latin American history for centuries. Starting with the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries there have always been military uprisings, military juntas, and so on.



On the other hand, I also have no doubt that the Soviets exploit this problem. They don't create them, but they exploit them—very efficiently. I have no doubt that there is indeed Soviet infiltration and penetration in all those Leftist regimes, which are no less atrocious than the Rightist regimes are atrocious. I don't think that the Sandinist government in Nicaragua is more liberal than the Rightist government in El Salvador. They are equally scandalous.

YPM: In the face of Soviet policy like this, what should the American response be?

Rudich: I don't think that the policy of supporting the military, Rightist juntas which are quite vicious, will result in something beneficial. I think that what should be done is to attempt to find a third way—that is, to build a Centrist front somehow, to rely on the middle class, to make investments in the middle class and create a broad popular movement which will be moderate. To support Rightist scoundrels is just as wrong as to support Leftist scoundrels and will result in a split national consciousness here, because the liberals will say reasonably that if you oppose the violation of human rights on the part of the Sandinists, why are you supporting the violations of human rights on the part of the Salvadoran junta?

Whether it is possible to create this popular front, I don't know. From time to time I feel that perhaps there is no solution. But several years ago I felt equally desperate about the Middle East, and certain progress really was made: the peace with Egypt; even the situation in Lebanon is better than it was earlier. Somehow, except for Syria, the Soviets were more or less driven out of the Middle East and that's very encouraging. Perhaps some hidden force or factors which we now simply cannot percieve will work in Central America.

YPM: When you came to the United States and were able to get more information on more issues were you surprised at the situation in certain places? I mean, was there accurate presentation in the Soviet media about the Middle East, for instance?

Rudich: Oh, very distorted. For example they almost completely ignored the Camp David process. Of course governmental anti-Semitism is under a disguise of anti-Zionism. An enormous number of nasty books are written on this subject, and they incite anti-Semitic passions in the populace. I myself had no doubts about the situation in the Middle East simply because I was in dissident circles and have many Zionist friends, but the average citizen is extremely confused.

YPM: How do the dissidents get information?

Rudich: Several ways. First of all, there is a thing called *samizdat*, that is, underground literature. There are tens of thousands of titles, if you have the proper connections, so you can always, with danger, of course, get something to read. Another way to get information is to listen to Western broadcasts. You have to build some kind of device to prevent the jamming. The third way is through contact with foreigners, particularly foreign journalists.

YPM: How should the United States deal with the Soviet Union?

Rudich: I am a very liberal person by nature, especially in domestic policy, but if you are a liberal in art, in social issues, in problems like civil rights, in your general lifestyle, it doesn't presuppose that you should be a so-called liberal in foreign policy, that you should like the Soviet Union. That is something very different; it has nothing to do with liberal ideas about welfare, social security, the fight against racism, assistance to the poor, etc.

As a rule those (and the Russian Revolution has proved it) who were liberals in art, in the avant-garde, or in the sexual area, become the first victims of the Revolution. They were destroyed by the Bolshevik government. For



me a real distinction exists between liberal attitudes towards domestic issues and foreign policy.

I am very much in favor of domestic liberalism, but in my view liberal beliefs are theoretically and practically incompatible with any sympathy towards the Soviet Union, with any version of Communism or even with socialism in its classical definition.

If you want to preserve liberal life in the United States, you have to defend it. And in order to defend it, you should be as tough as possible towards the ruthless enemy which is the Soviet Union. I believe that the proper way to deal with the Soviet government is deterence. So while I really resent many of President Reagan's actions in domestic fields, the cuts for the National Endowment for the Sciences, the National Endowment for the Humanities, the National Endowment for the Arts, all sorts of cultural approaches which were undercut, and his taxation policy, still I have to say that I generally approve of his stand against the Soviet Union, because he is the first person to consistently defy Soviet aggression.

During detente the Soviets consistently cheated. It looks like they achieved military superiority over the U.S. They did not play a fair game at all. Detente, unfortunately, was a failure, and the fault was Soviet, not American. Now we must achieve military parity. But even more important than achieving military parity would be a Western embargo on advanced technology. Technologically, the Soviet Union is 20 years behind, and even the most innocent machine produced here will be immediately utilized there in military industry. If imposed—whether it is feasible is another question—such an embargo could defeat the U.S.S.R. economically in 5 years.

YPM: There is a big furor in Europe now over the deployment of the missiles. How do you feel about that?

Rudich: Again, I feel that if equal furor were possible in East Germany, in Czechoslovakia, in Poland, where the Soviet missiles are located, I would say fine, let's try to destroy both. But since there is nothing like this, I find this furor the product of misguided idealists who don't understand the reality that they are confronting.

YPM: How does all this tie in to Greek and Roman history?

Rudich: There are parallels between the Roman Empire and the Soviet Union. When we look in historical perspective, a great number of lessons will be found. For example, the liberal idealistic movement in Roman history was the very noble, very idealistic agrarian movement led by Tiberius and Gaius Gracchi. When it resorted to violence, it led to the establishment of the most reactionary military dictatorship, the principate of Augustus. Many young radicals here who think of violence as a way to solve social and political problems should keep this lesson in mind, because the same thing happened in the Soviet Union, in Cuba, in Nicaragua, and in Iran something even worse happened. The careful study of ancient history can provide us with some illumination of our behavior, and one lesson is never to allow recourse to violence, because violence has an extraordinary capacity to transfigure human mentality into that of a beast.

YPM: What about when confronting a foreign foe?

Rudich: From a Christian point of view, even if you are forced to go to war it still doesn't justify your going to war, and it should be the source of great repentance. Going to war is a suffering, and if a person does not justify his killing in terms of necessity but suffers through it, and purifies himself through suffering, this is a proper way from a Christian point of view, as I see it. Foreign violence can be imposed on us. But domestic violence is never imposed. It is simply a matter of our freedom of choice, and I think that domestic violence, and any kind of revolution, therefore, is always destructive.

YPM: But the United States had its own revolution when it became a country, and it was forced to use violence against the British—

Rudich: Your revolution was not simply a domestic revolution. It is perhaps using the wrong term even to call it a revolution. It was a war for independence. Since it was a war for independence, the whole pattern of revolution was different. Compare your revolution with the French revolution, which happened almost at the same time, and think about the Jacobin terror, which never happened in your country, because the goals were different.

YPM: There are many ethnic minorities in the Soviet Union, which, one would assume, would like their independence. Will this pose a problem?

Rudich: Yes. I think, in fact, that it is the most important and probably insoluble problem in the Soviet Union, even more important than the economic chaos and economic deadlock which the country is in now. The nationalities are awakening, and certain demographic statistics show that very soon, perhaps in five years, the Russians will become an ethnic minority. Since all those other nationalities are exploited by the Russians, and since there is a broad "Russification" of those nationalities, the result may be horrible. If there is trouble, it is likely especially in Central Asia that there will be real bloodshed, and I am horrified at the mere idea of it.

YPM: You mentioned the economic problems of the Soviet Union. Do you see these and the ethnic problems and the problems in the satellites—such as Poland—leading to a collapse of the system?

Rudich: Of course, people like me like to dream that the whole thing will end soon, and when our friends ask whether the Soviet Union will survive until 1984, our desired answer would be that it will not. On the other hand, there are two general issues here. One is the extremely powerful army: many things depend on the stand that the army will take. The second problem is that the populace is really terrorized. Thirty years of Stalin's terror produced a distorted human psyche, a kind of *Homo Sovieticus*, almost a new anthropological species. *Homo Sovieticus* is immensely fearful, and things which are regarded here as trivial are perceived by the Soviet person as a mortal danger.

YPM: Such as what?

Rudich: I will tell you a story. I had a friend who was quite a well-known literary critic, a rather aged person. Once on the tramway I mentioned helicopters, just in conversation. He immediately became silent, and when we left the tram he said "How did you dare to talk about helicopters?" I said "What is wrong with helicopters?" He said "But helicopters—they relate to the military! People who could hear us in the tram, they might think that I have something to do with military secrets!"

It is a kind of paranoia which you confront at every step in Russia. Perhaps the new generation who didn't suffer under Stalin will have more stamina. But the crackdown on dissidents that is going on nowadays is a problem. Another possibilty is that the new generation of leadership will prove more flexible.

YPM: Do you think Yuri Andropov is a closet liberal?

Rudich: Oh nonsense! He is a zombie! He is a . . . a . . . an anti-human! By the new generation I mean those who are now in their fifties, who rose after the death of Stalin, and who didn't go through these terrifying experiences. The history of Russia shows that nothing can be predicted. In 1913 there was a big celebration of the 300th year of Romanov rule. No one had any idea that in four years the whole thing would collapse. Even Lenin himself, once the February Revolution had taken place, was amazed. He had thought that his lifetime would not be enough to bring about a revolution. So there are certain hidden processes which are imperceptible—we don't know what they are, nor what they will result in. I would not be very much amazed if at some point a monarchy was installed in Russia. Who knows? Soviet power may be a lesser evil than something else. If real turmoil started up, who knows what might happen? It well might be that

Nazi-type people will come to power, because Russian nationalism is now extremely strong. Perhaps I am exaggerating, but for certain groups of people there will be the possibility of substituting the bankrupt Marxist ideology (no one in the country believes in Marxism, I am sure that even Andropov doesn't believe in Marxism) with something much stronger: nationalist ideology.

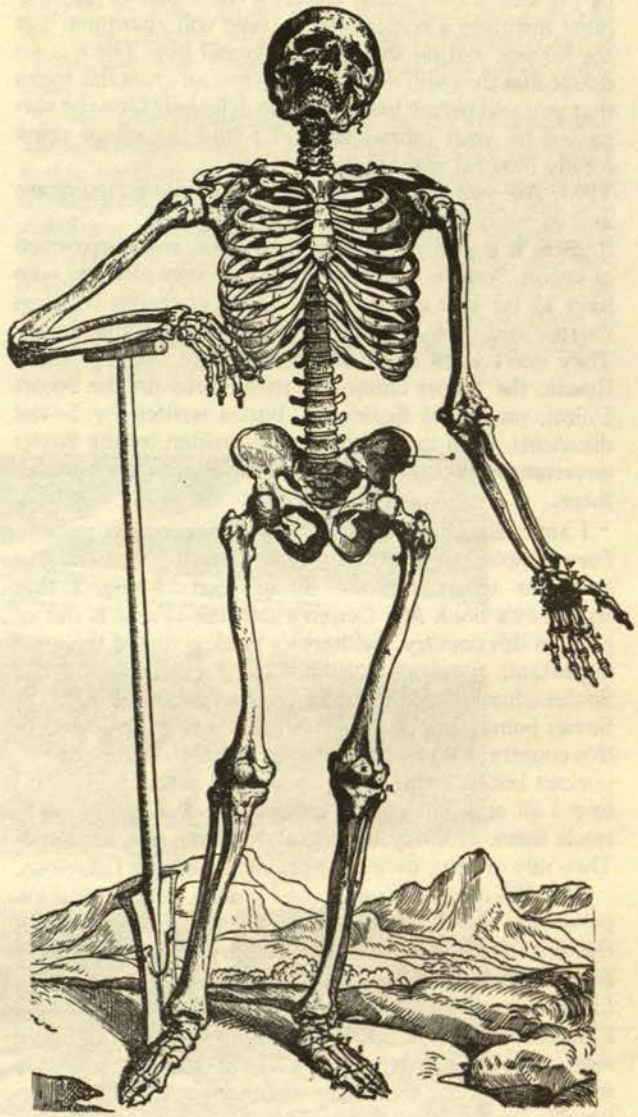
I said that I am sure that no one believes in Marxism. But here a qualification should be made: the government does not believe in Marxism, in Communism, but its mind is trained in such a way that it cannot treat problems otherwise than in Marxist terms. For example, if they speak about religion, for them religion is always the opiate of the people. They cannot understand that religion can be a real thing. For them the Ayatollah Khomeini is someone manipulated by the CIA, because religion, from their viewpoint, is something to be manipulated. They cannot understand that people can be genuinely committed to believing in God and still act by themselves. For them religion is the result of social and economic circumstances. Their consciousness in some sense is programmed; they can think only along certain patterns. That is why they grossly misconceive all world developments and this may result in their destruction.

On the other hand, Western governments very much misconceive the situation in Russia and in other countries. Iran is, I think, very instructive, because nobody expected the kind of revolution that happened there. If Western specialists had really known the situation in Iran, I am convinced that the events could have been prevented.

YPM: Do you think that the West lacks the will to defend itself?

Rudich: This is the problem Solzhenitsyn raises, but I am not in agreement with him. I think that he misconceives the situation. There are problems in the West, which I mentioned; the so-called moral laxity is apparent. I believe in the existence of absolute and universal values, and in the necessity of moralism. But being a moralist does not mean, unfortunately, being a moral man. I detest people who call themselves a "moral majority." Those who claim to be moral are almost always scoundrels. I am a pluralist by persuasion, and I welcome any other constructive idea. Every reasonable approach to history and classics is legitimate, and together, hopefully, they may enable us to approach the ultimate truth.

But moral values are important, they are a kind of axis around which humanity has existed for millenia. Now those values are in crisis; I am an optimist and I believe that it is soluble. Solzhenitsyn attributes moral laxity to excessive freedom; I believe that qualifications should be made. Look at Great Britain between the First and Second World Wars. There was apparently a decadent society, great moral laxity, the infamous policy of appeasement towards Hitler. However, when the real trouble came, when the war started, the British mobilized themselves with such extraordinary energy, commitment, and stamina that for about a year Britain was fighting against the forces of all the rest of Europe, and finally won. I am convinced that the Battle of Britain —the German failure to conquer Britain—was one of the essential causes of the German defeat in the Second World War. It shows that even with laxity in time of peace, democratic societies are capable of mobilizing themselves when real trouble comes. I have great faith in American society in this respect.



YPM: Except with the terrifying destructive capabilities of modern weapons, can we afford to wait for the war to begin this time?

Rudich: If war begins, it may well start first as a kind of conventional war, and mobilization in this case would be immediate. There is a chance that this mobilization would send a message to the enemy that the whole thing should be stopped. To some extent the West is too relaxed, and of course there are ideas such as "Better Red than dead," but I think that this attitude is only on the surface. I really think that the mass of people, if necessary, will defend themselves.

YPM: You have made a parallel between Rome and Russia, in certain ways. Do you think there is a parallel between Athens and America?

Rudich: Yes, there is a parallel between Athens and America in some ways, and this is why it is so important to study Greek history, to avoid those mistakes which the Athenians made frequently. I think that the American democracy, having survived already for 200 years, has, generally speaking, behaved very well. It has a chance to continue this way if it doesn't make any fatal errors. One of these fatal errors is an underestimation of the external threat, as the peace movement has done. I am bewildered

by the idea of the nuclear freeze. If the American government institutes a nuclear freeze, who will guarantee that the Soviets will do the same? They *will not!* There is no doubt that they will not make any freeze! Does this mean that you will permit yourself to be defeated? Or to be surpassed by your mortal enemy? I find the whole thing totally illogical and idiotic.

YPM: Are you surprised that so many young Americans and so many Yalies believe these things?

Rudich: It is partly a matter of egotism, and narrowness of vision. Some young people who are very nice and who have all the best ideals have a vision of reality which is narrow and even blind. They don't know many things. They don't want to do the prerequisite thing to study Russia, the Soviet Union, to read books on the Soviet Union, on Soviet dissidence, books written by Soviet dissidents, even to read the books written by the Soviet government and to see the fallacies which are exposed there.

I am really stunned by certain things in that respect. For example, preparing for my seminar on Nero, having to order books for the Soviet part, I found that Sakharov's book *My Country and the World* is out of print in this country. Sakharov's book is one of the most important, penetrating, illuminating books about the Soviet situation and the international situation from the Soviet point of view. And this book was out of print! In this country you cannot find even in hardcover many important books written by Soviet dissidents. In Europe I found all of them, even in paperback. But here nobody reads them. Nobody wants to study the real situation. They rely on their own perceptions, which are fallacious.

The difference in Russian and American historical experience is too vast for them to understand. Look only at the first fifty-five years of this century. During this time Russia suffered a defeat in a war with Japan, a revolution in 1905, involvement in World War I, the collapse of the Romanov dynasty, the Bolshevik Revolution and civil war, collectivization and the Great Hunger (about 6 million died), the Great Terror (another 40 million perished), World War II (another 10 million lost), and destalinization, which deprived hundreds of thousands of their last source of faith. Nine cataclysmic events. The worst thing that happened in America during this period was the presidency of Hoover [and the Depression].

YPM: You say that in Europe the books are more available. But in many ways the European peace movement is more active and more hostile to the deployment of missiles, for example, than the American peace movement.

Rudich: On the other hand, in Europe there are many, especially among the young, who are opposed to the peace movement. The elections in West Germany are an indication of this. With all the noise made by the peace movement, still the Christian Democrats, who are in favor of the deployment, came to power. This shows that the general populace, not the idealistic radicals, understands the situation better.

YPM: How does one mix idealism and realism?

Rudich: A difficult question. That is to say, whether good is able to triumph over evil without turning into evil. I think that idealism is compatible with realism. It just depends on us. Let us speak about human rights. They should be equally defended, both against Leftist dictatorships and against Rightist dictatorships. In my view, one of the great errors of American policy during the Cold War was the notion that "the enemy of our enemy is our friend." This resulted in a split in the national consciousness, especially with regard to liberals. Certain ideals, like human rights, like freedom, should be promoted everywhere; I am sure that if enough pressure is exerted on Rightist regimes, those regimes can be liberalized—for their own salvation and in order to get support from the American government.

Realism and idealism may coincide as regards the peace movement also. Appeal to the Soviet Union to disarm, and to make a nuclear freeze. Why not write millions of letters to Andropov? I am sure that if the Soviet government received ten million letters from American citizens demanding mutual disarmament, they would be impressed. Why write letters only to President Reagan? It would be a combination of idealism and realism to support the human rights movement in the Soviet Union. Why does nobody speak about the pacifist movement in East Germany? It is in its incipient stages, but it exists, and the authorities have trouble with it. Why among the pacifists in this country does nobody speak about this?

YPM: Are there widespread KGB activities in the United States?

Rudich: I would not go so far as the administration goes, suggesting that the peace movement is in fact staged and inspired by the KGB. The peace movement is a natural phenomenon in our predicament, because people do not want to perish. Naturally they will struggle for peace. The problem is what direction the struggle for peace should take. The struggle for peace should apply pressure on both sides: on the American government and on the Soviet government in equal measure. Otherwise it will be illogical. But it is quite possible that the KGB exploits the peace movement to some extent. They don't engineer it, but, as always, they exploit it. The Soviets rarely engineer something, but they exploit situations which already exist for their purposes in a very ruthless manner.

YPM: Have you had any contact with the KGB since you have been here?

Rudich: Here? No, no one has ever approached me.

YPM: Are they more of a presence than is generally thought?

Rudich: I think that there are a lot of KGB people here, that emigration was used partly to send KGB people over, but again, I don't think that they can do that much in this country. You see, the KGB is to some extent a bureaucratic organization. They are horrible and nasty people, but they are not all-powerful, they are not gods. I think that their work here is basically routine—they collect information but nothing else.

YPM: Do any American television shows, or movies, or books, written not by dissidents but by Americans, portray the Soviet Union as it really is?

Rudich: Hedrick Smith's *The Russians* is one of the very few books written by Americans which penetrate the situation in the Soviet Union. Certainly movies like 'Reds" say almost nothing about what is going on.

YPM: You mentioned the passion of Soviet students of culture, and you yourself are an incredibly passionate teacher. Are you surprised or disappointed by the lack of passion of some of the students and professors around you?

Rudich: Yes. I think that this is one of the major flaws in your education. Teaching is an emotional and a moral process and education has the goal not only of teaching somebody something but also of helping a person to understand himself as a human being within the human community. If teaching is passionate and enthusiastic, the students will get more passion and enthusiasm, and knowledge will reach them not totally petrified and abstract and irrelevant to the outside world.

YPM: Are there any questions that I haven't asked that you would like to ask yourself, or are there any final comments you have?

Rudich: Simply that once again I am very happy to be here at Yale, a wonderful place which millions of people dream about, and I want to wish good luck to all the students at Yale who are doing a splendid job, generally speaking. All my criticisms and reservations are minor in comparison with the wonderful things that can be found here.

I was concentrating on myself during the interview, but now I want to say how grateful I am to the University and to my Department, who have given me this splendid opportunity. My advisors and my colleagues have provided me with an astonishing amount of support, encouragement, understanding, and professional and personal help. This is something inconceivable in the Soviet Union. It was after having experienced this welcome at Yale that I began to feel at home in the United States.

YPM: Thank you.



Thirty years from now, *you* will be making the political, social, and economic decisions people will discuss. What you do then will be based on what you think now. Why wait thirty years to try your hand?

Yale Political Monthly

Read it.

Respond to it.

Write for it.

Organizational Meeting
Thursday, November 10 • 7:30 p.m. • Saybrook Athenaeum Room

A Sport for the Rich

Michael Gordy

A SEAT in Congress is not something a wealthy man can easily buy for himself. He can, however, put a pretty good down-payment on one. The huge cost of modern campaigning has created a Darwinian process of political selection in which the richest are most fit to survive. Although the influence of candidates' personal wealth has not captured the media's attention as the more glamorous Political Action Committee (PAC) problem has, it poses as dangerous a threat to our political system as any other problem of campaign finance.

At the very least, there were 17 millionaire senators and 24 millionaire representatives in the 1980-81 Congress. Of these 41, at least 13 are multi-millionaires. An additional 54 congressmen have assets of over $500,000. Therefore, at least 75 of the 535 members of Congress—18 percent—are in a wealth bracket shared by only one half of one percent of all Americans. As troubling as this figure is, it is quite conservative compared to other estimates claiming 30 millionaires in the Senate alone. Estimates vary because the new financial disclosure rules, instituted in 1980, are well-tailored to the congressman wishing to hide his wealth. Under the new rules, the top income range listed is "$250,000 or more" and congressmen need not list the value of their homes nor, more importantly, the value of their stock shares. Under the old rules, Representative Fred Richmond (D-NY) and Senator John Heinz (R-PA), as examples, had to divulge their full assets of $28 and $21 million respectively; their most recent reports revealed only $1 and $3 million to the public. The philosophic emphasis on the public's ability to scrutinize its elected officials seems to be eroding.

It might be argued that there is nothing inherently wrong with a disproportionately high average wealth among congressmen. After all, the affluent are usually better educated and have proven themselves relatively good at managing money and men; these are special merits for a legislator. But not all the wealthy nor only the wealthy possess them. If we value these qualities, we should want our election system to select for them; the substitution of wealth as a selection device, though it often resembles those merits, is a distortion of our political goals. This distinction has always occupied a special position in American political philosophy. In Federalist Paper No. 57 James Madison wrote:

> No qualification of wealth, of birth, or religious faith or of civil profession is permitted to fetter the judgement or disappoint the inclination of the people.

That money become, to any degree, an implicit eligibility requirement for a seat in Washington is entirely repugnant to our political vision, yet this threatens to occur.

A bias toward the wealthy in our election process also poses a very practical and immediate danger. Self-made millionaires are rare: most wealthy men grow up wealthy and thus are incapable of empathizing with the problems of the poor or, often, the concerns of the middle class. Sympathy and voter pressure can go a long way, but the most concerned multi-millionaire can never quite understand the needs and desires of those who must struggle from day to day. A humorous but revealing demonstration of this gap occurred when Sargent Shriver, Peace Corps founder and very wealthy man, was campaigning in West Virginia for the 1972 McGovern-Shriver ticket. He was shaking hands in a working-class bar when, in a fit of generosity, he ordered beer for everyone in the house—and a Courvoisier for himself. As perfectly well-intentioned as Shriver was, his understanding of the people he wished to represent clearly left something to be desired. We shouldn't extrapolate too much from this little incident; it was a moment's blunder by a sincere humanitarian. Still, it is quite difficult to imagine the son of a blue-collar family committing this particular faux pas. The apparent inability of the rich to understand the particular notion of societal equality that is so essential to the dignity possessed by the less privileged is perhaps a great contributor to the unnecessary humility suffered by recipients of government aid programs. Perhaps the programs would have been better designed had a few more congressmen had a much more humble upbringing. Other examples of legislative insensitivity are hardly difficult to find.

WHEN we also recognize that not all congressmen are perfectly well-intentioned, a whole new set of dangers emerges. One certainly must wonder, for example, if the recent tax cuts would have so heavily favored the well-off if so many congressmen were not quite so well-off themselves. It is not impossible that future legislation will favor the rich in some positive proportion to the average wealth per congressman. Such legislation would have to be subtle—obscure tax breaks, for example—but Congress could get away with quite a lot,

Michael Gordy, '85, is an associate editor of *YPM* and worked on the senate campaign____ of Toby Moffett last year.



especially since a wealthy congressman need not be dependent upon his constituents for financial support. Of course, he will always need their votes, but as most voters only know what the advertisements tell them, victories may be reasonably ensured with his own wallet and those of a few friendly PACs. Thus, a substantial advantage to the wealthy in elections threatens to corrupt, though not dissolve, our political system.

There are many ways to translate personal riches into a campaign victory. The least subtle technique is simply to donate a few million dollars to one's own campaign. If the candidate is rich enough, he won't even have to bother building up a volunteer corps or a network of PAC support. Fortunately, this strategy is not particularly successful, partly because the need for a broad political support base cannot entirely be circumvented, and partly because an opponent can use such a blatant distortion of campaigning as a campaign point: "My opponent, Mr. So-and-So, is trying to buy himself this seat . . ." These factors, incumbency, and some help from the PACs were largely responsible for Senator Dave Durenberger's (R-MN) 1982 victory over Mark Dayton, whose total campaign expenditure of $7.2 million included $6.9 million from his own pocket. However, it shouldn't be ignored that John Heinz (R-PA) and Frank Lautenberg (D-NJ) did, in fact, succeed in transforming several million dollars from their own checkbooks ($5 million in 1976, and $4 million in 1982, respectively) into reserved seats on the Senate floor; Lew Lehrman very nearly accomplished the same in his bid for the governorship of New York. Some consolation, perhaps, is that the really big personal fortunes, or at least the desire to spend them this way, seem pretty well split across party lines.

A FAR more subtle and efficient way to employ a personal fortune, though not popularly recognized, is to make short-term loans to one's own campaign at critical moments. It is necessary here to clarify some general points on campaign finance. First, personal wealth is of greatest use to challengers, as incumbents already have built a network of friendly PACs and private citizens ready to pitch in money when needed. In addition, incumbents need money less than challengers because they have already achieved name-recognition within their constituencies and thus need less advertising. A challenger for a seat in the House, on average, must spend $320,000 to achieve name-recognition anywhere near his opponent. On the House level especially, it is name-recognition—not the issues—that wins elections. Second, money, especially cash, is most needed at the very beginning of a campaign, in order to set up the staff, phone banks, and handbills that form both the embryo and the backbone of the campaign. If a candidate is wealthy, he can simply loan his own campaign whatever it needs to start up, or to get by at any other time when the cash flow is thin and then have the loan repaid before filling out his quarterly Federal Election Commission (FEC) report. If he times it correctly, the loan will have served its purpose, and yet not have to be reported to the public as a personal contribution would. In the end, there is almost no cost to his own fortune, his FEC reports appear perfectly honorable, and he has a smoothly-running campaign.

The middle class candidate, in contrast, is caught in a vicious circle: He cannot receive money from his only sources—his party, PACs, and generous individuals—until he has proven himself a viable candidate by winning a party primary. He cannot win a primary, however, without an organized, financed campaign. In other words, a candidate must spend "seed money" in order to collect money with which he must advertise in order to win. Furthermore, as banks are well aware of the high loan-default rate of losing campaigns, no bank is willing to loan an unknown, middle class, would-be challenger the tens of thousands of dollars he needs to get well underway.

Of course, it is by no means impossible for a middle class challenger to overcome this unfavorable system; some still can begin with a local PTA board and slowly climb the political ladder to public prominence. Rather, these circumstances may be justly described as a filter that frustrates middle class challengers but allows wealthy ones to pass through with reasonable ease. Presented with such a grim outlook, most middle class potential challengers are discouraged from making any attempt at all at a primary. Those who choose to run tend to be overwhelmed early by the resources of richer opponents. By the time the primary is over, the two contenders for the seat are very nearly always significantly wealthier than the district's average citizen. Clearly, when the field contains a disproportionate number of upper-class candidates, the elected Congress will contain a disproportionate number of wealthy legislators.

The problem is certainly greater now than at any other point in this century. The most direct cause is that radio and newspapers, relatively cheap sources of advertisement, have been usurped by television, a very expensive advertising medium. A less direct factor has been the steady increase in "office perks" for congressmen. Congressmen now are permitted an extraordinary amount of free mailing to their constituencies; this subtle source of free advertising is not available to challengers, who must spend heavily to compete with it. Finally, one consequence of women moving out of the kitchen and into the workforce is that the once-mighty volunteer army of housewives, the backbone of past inexpensive campaigns across the country, has been reduced to a few sparse divisions. Similarly, most students are now too busy working to cope with high college costs to have time to devote to campaigns. The result: campaigning now costs more than ever before, furthering the advantage of wealthy candidates.

THE PROBLEM is far more easily described than solved, though Congress did try. In reaction to a generally scandalous state of campaign finance—and Nixon's 1972 $60 million campaign in particular— Congress passed legislation in 1974 intended to revamp and clean-up campaign finance entirely. Although it was mostly successful, several major, unforeseen problems sprang up. First, the newly formalized system of Political Action Committees (PACs), intended to halt the under-the-table donations then going on, has grown so unexpectedly large, so quickly, the it is now recognized as a problem worthy of the cover story of *Time*. Second, the limit on personal expenditure that it set was declared unconstitutional by the Supreme Court in its 1976 *Buckley v. Valeo* decision. The Court decided, reasonably enough, that placing any limit on someone's ability to spend on his own behalf is a violation of the First Amendment. Understandably, Congress is now very hesitant about, if not adamantly opposed to, considering any further legislation for reforming any aspect of campaign finance, especially personal spending.

In the 1970's, proposals were made for public funding of congressional campaigns, as had been instituted for presidential races. These proposals were, and remain, undesirable for many reasons. Since a block-grant based program would encourage people to declare candidacy fraudulently in order to collect money, all proposals were based on matching funds; i.e., a candidate would receive money in proportion to the number of donations he had collected independently. It also seems fairest to distribute money in proportion to a measure of popularity. However, because a campaign must already be in motion before funds may be solicited from private citizens, a potential candidate would still be faced with the cost of starting his campaign before receiving government assistance. Most of the proposals offered money only to primary winners, requiring candidates not only to manage start-up expenses, but to find fuel for a winning primary campaign.

All of the proposals included limits on total spending. a theoretically good way to prevent the very rich from attempting to buy seats for themselves. In practice, however, a congress full of incumbents has no incentive to set the ceiling high enough to give challengers a decent chance of gaining name-recognition; this problem emerged in both S926 and HR5157, the two public funding proposals that made it to the floor and were rejected. Thus, a system of public funding would probably do far less to support middle-class candidates than to help incumbents remain incumbents. Finally, public funding of congressional campaigns is thoroughly unpopular with tax-payers; only 2 percent are willing to contribute to such a system.

Attacking the root of the problem, that is, the huge cost of campaigning, is very difficult but not impossible. Cutting down congressmen's mailing privileges would certainly ease the advertising burden on challengers; however, it is difficult to imagine a congressman proposing an uncompensated blow to the advantages of incumbency. Returning the volunteer army to the campaign trail would require little short of doubling financial aid to students or legislating women back out of the workforce; neither measure seems particularly likely or desirable. To offer tax breaks or other financial incentives to volunteers is not only repugnant to the concept of volunteerism, but would bloat the FEC bureaucracy and encourage abuse in practice.

The most feasible way to reduce advertising costs is perhaps the only way to address this problem: government subsidization of campaign advertising. In order to prevent abuse, advertising would have to be rather narrowly defined as television, radio and newspaper ads. The government could prevent itself from funding extravagant campaigns by setting the subsidization rate on a sliding scale; for example, the government could pay for 50 percent of the first, critical $100,000, and then 20-30 percent of the next $200,000, as the candidate emerges in the public eye, and then nothing thereafter. Placing a tax on extravagant expenditures over, say, $800,000 would narrow the advantage of the wealthy in hotly contested races. More importantly, by soothing fears of very wealthy challengers launching huge campaigns, this tax might make many congressmen quite willing to extend subsidies to relatively "underprivileged" challengers, especially as the subsidy would simultaneously apply to their own campaigns. The Supreme Court should also find it acceptable, for it offers appropriate incentives and disincentives without infringing upon the Constitutional right to spend as one pleases. The main point of this proposal, of course, is to allow a campaign to start up more cheaply, giving a middle class challenger a chance to establish credibility as a candidate, through advertising, and so enabling him to solicit support successfully from his potential constituency. Importantly the cost of this program could easily be kept under one dollar per taxpayer.

Whether or not reforms will be made is only a long-term question; for now, the campaign advantages of the wealthy are secure. As long as the problem remains obscure to the American voter, no one in power has any incentive to make changes. Reforms seem to come only when the system is disgraced, as during the Watergate period. Thus, unless they so clearly abuse their power that wealth itself becomes a campaign issue, running for Congress will remain, like polo, a sport for the rich.



The Strategic Exclusion of Israel

Gideon G. Rose

September, 1983 When the United States had to resupply the desperate Lebanese Army with ammunition, NATO ally Greece refused the U.S. access to its airfields and even to American bases on Greek soil, while at the same time allowing Czechoslovakian military transports to land and refuel en route to resupplying Syria. NATO ally Turkey also refused the United States access to its airfields. The Lebanese Army was eventually resupplied from British bases on Cyprus.

October, 1983 After the terrorist bombing of the U.S. Marine complex in Beirut, Marine wounded were flown to distant aircraft carriers, to British bases on Cyprus, and some even to West Germany, 4½ hours away. At least one Marine died because of the delay in adequate medical care.

October, 1983 Leaks revealing extensive U.S. training and supplying of a Jordanian mobile strike force marked American involvement in an 'Arab RDF' of dubious commitment, popularity, and ability.

THESE are simply the most recent examples of the systematic exclusion of Israel from U.S. stratetic planning in the Middle East, a policy which hurts the United States while providing nothing in return. Israel would accept U.S. bases and could have helped supply the ammunition; Israeli hospitals, the best in the region and only half an hour away, were standing ready to treat American casualties; and crack Israeli anti-terrorist and commando troops with proven records were passed over as U.S. proxies. American national interests are being ignored as strategic and military policy is held hostage to misguided appeasement of Arab demands.

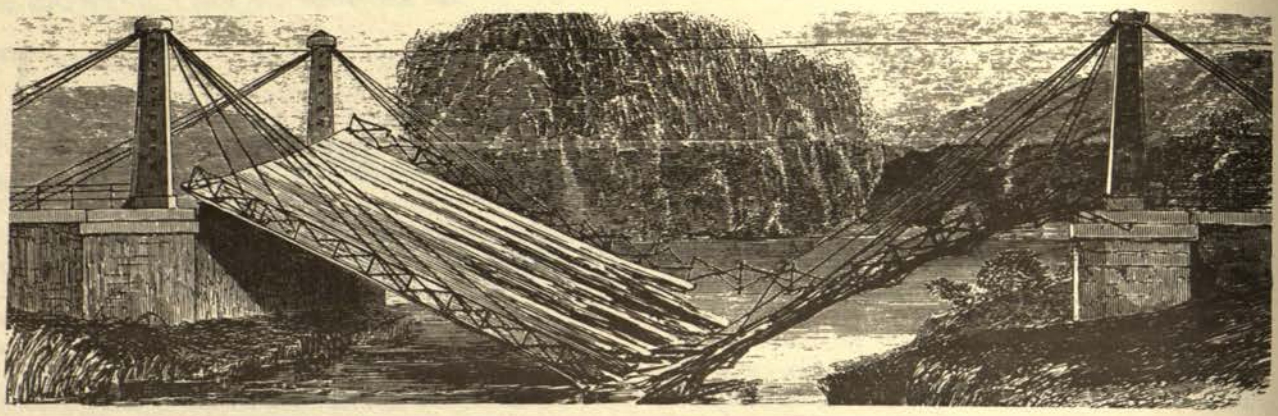
The United States has several strategic goals in the Middle East and Eastern Mediterranean: ensuring Western access to Persian Gulf oil; protecting NATO's southern flank in time of war; protecting U.S. allies in the region from Soviet and Soviet proxies' threats; and protecting U.S. economic interests. Israel can help substantially in all these areas. But certain U.S. observers, seduced by Arab oil wealth, are willing to do anything to protect supposedly endangered economic interests at the expense of a wise regional defense posture. Fearful of Arab displeasure, these voices reject any cooperation with Israel, even when that cooperation manifestly benefits the U.S. Since the record does not bear out their fears, however, they should no longer stand in the way of a true strategic alliance between the United States and Israel.

IN THE WAKE of the Iranian crisis and the Soviet invasion of Afghanistan, which underscored the precarious nature of Western access to Persian Gulf oil, President Carter proclaimed the 'Carter Doctrine,' that the United States would defend with force if neccessary its interests in the Persian Gulf. This doctrine was fortified by the creation of a Rapid Deployment Force (RDF) able to project American strength quickly into critical areas. Unfortunately, like the Holy Roman Empire, the RDF seemed at first to be a triple misnomer—it was neither rapid, nor deployable, nor forceful. The difficulty in creating a viable RDF, and hence a creditible deterrent to Soviet aggression, has remained a central problem in U.S. strategic planning.

Because of the great distance of probable areas of conflict from the continental United States, the cost and delay involved in moving men and materiel stationed here should be prohibitive: if we were to use half of our strategic lift capability, it would take 77 days to transport just one mechanized division from the United States to the Gulf, and it would cost $390 million. This would be too little, too late, for too much. The dilemma has given rise to the concept of "prepositioning," the stationing of supplies and equipment for RDF use somewhere in the region beforehand, so that in a crisis only troops would have to be transported.

Various locations have been suggested for prepositioning: Diego Garcia, a small island in the Indian Ocean; Kenya; Somalia; Egypt; and Oman. All of these sites, however, lack at least one of the four qualities needed for an ideal prepositioning site: location, political reliability (depth of commitment to U.S. interests), political stability (probable length of commitment to U.S. interests), and air defensibility. Diego Garcia is the U.S. base closest to the Gulf, and is reasonably reliable, stable, and defensible, but it is 3,000 miles away. Kenya is 2,500 miles away, and cannot provide adequate air cover to protect any equipment that might be stored there from a preemptive strike by neighboring Soviet proxies. Somalia is 1,600 miles away, demands exorbitant fees in return for

Gideon G. Rose, '85, is Editor-in-Chief of the *Yale Political Monthly*.



basing privileges, is not very stable, and has the same problems with air defense that Kenya has. Egypt is well-suited geographically (1,100 miles away), is politically reliable, and can provide air defense against anybody except Israel, but its continued stability must be called into question.

Isolated from the Arab world because of its peace treaty with Israel, Egypt may come under increasing pressure to come back into the fold, which would mean less overt and extensive relations with both Israel and the United States. Oman, while geographically ideal (800 miles), cannot provide air cover to defend any equipment against attacks from Soviet bases in Afghanistan or from South Yemen. It is also reluctant to permit major visible cooperation with the U.S. In response to these problems, American planners have advocated "spreading the risk" among various sites, with Egypt primary among them. It is ironic that the single best-suited prepositioning site in the region has not even been considered.

Israel meets every precondition for basing and emerges in comparison as an excellent site. Its location 1,300 miles away is third only to Oman and Egypt. If distance to Europe is also considered—the ideal site could be used for a "swing force" going to conflict either in the Gulf or in Europe—Israel is the closest (2,500 miles from Munich), with only Egypt (2,900 miles) comparable.

Because of the permanent alignment of Israel with the democratic Western world and with the United States in particular, Israeli and U.S. interests are and will continue to be similar; Israel recognizes that its security is connected to the security of the United States, and will do whatever is necessary to aid U.S. forces. Because of its democratic political system, open society, and moral heritage, Israel is the only truly stable U.S. ally in the region, and the only state whose help can be counted on not only now but also for the foreseeable future. And because of its unique situation among hostile states, the Israeli Air Force must permanently ensure the sanctity of Israeli airspace: Israel is the only site where U.S. equipment would be safe from domestic violence and from air attack.

Compared to the 77 days and $390 million it would take to transport one mechanized division from the U.S. to Saudi Arabia (using half our airlift capacity), the 11 days and $63 million it would take from Israel seem extremely efficient. If the United States were to build and operate enough transports to match the 11-day Israeli time, it would cost $9.5 *billion*. In the face of these differentials, the current reliance of the United States on long, costly stratetic airlift from the continental U.S. and on alliances with dubious friends seems foolhardy.

PROTECTING NATO's southern flank in wartime and protecting Western interests and allies in the region from Soviet and Soviet-sponsored aggression requires controlling the Mediterranean, the primary job of the U.S. Sixth Fleet. The fleet must protect itself, project force ashore to defend allies and deter enemies, and safeguard necessary lines of communication and supply. Israel can help to do these things at little or no cost. Defending the Sixth Fleet means protecting the ships against anti-ship missiles and submarine attacks; defending allies and interests in the region means deterring Soviet attacks; and defending lines of communication means providing air cover and support.

Because of the expanding Soviet role in the area, and the drain of Sixth Fleet resources involved in protecting the Persian Gulf, the U.S. Navy presence in the Eastern Mediterranean needs to be bolstered; the cheapest and easiest way to do this is to utilize the Israeli Navy and Air Force. By equipping Israeli ships with anti-submarine technology, at one stroke the United States could vastly increase its protection against Soviet submarine attack at minor cost; since anti-submarine technology cannot be used for any other purpose it is hard to understand any objection to this move. Because of its preeminence in the region, the Israeli Air Force is ideally suited to providing the deep cover needed to protect lines both of communication and supply not only over the Mediterranean but over the Persian Gulf.

Since Israel cannot afford to be cut off from the sea, and since the major enemy of the United States, the Soviet Union, is also a major enemy of Israel, the strategic goals of the two countries in the Mediterranean are similar. All that is necessary is to hold joint operations to familiarize the armed services of each with those of the other. The Soviet Union must already consider Israeli forces in any East-West balance of power in the region; it is folly for the United States not to do so as well. Lest some say that the advantages already exist and that there is no need for further cooperation, it must be recognized that nations cannot work in unison without prior preparation—the role Israel could play in American actions in the region is negligible unless there are joint exercises beforehand.

MANY of the same arguments which support cooperation between Israel and the U.S. RDF and Navy support cooperation between Israel and the U.S. Air Force. Any RDF move would require large quantities

of fuel and adequate air protection of the transports. The logical solution for the fuel problem is the same as for RDF equipment: prepositioning in Israel.

Fuel depots are even more vulnerable to terrorist or air attack than supply depots; because of the absolute protection Israel could provide it would seem the best choice, at the very least for a worst-case fallback supply. Protection of air transports, like protection of lines of communication, could be provided by the dominant air power in the region (whose record against Soviet-made planes is excellent): Israel. An additional area of possible cooperation is aircraft maintenance. Because of its constant need for air defense, Israel has developed aircraft maintenance facilities unique in the area. Since this infrastructure is designed to service U.S.-made planes, it could provide parts and expert service for the U.S. Air Force in times of need—something no other country in the area could supply, and yet which would be crucial in any protracted conflict.

A parallel need which again only Israel could fill would be adequate medical facilities capable of treating casualties resulting from U.S. action in the region. Little attention has been given to this aspect of a struggle, but unless the wounded are to be left on the battlefield or wait to be airlifted back to the nearest U.S. base thousands of miles away, some form of medical care close by must be found. In contrast to the almost Medieval conditions in certain countries nearby, Israel's hospitals rival those in the United States, especially in regard to treating wounded soldiers—an area in which Israel has regrettably been forced to specialize.

Because of its wars with Soviet clients, Israel has served as the primary testing-ground for much American military equipment. The lessons learned have often been shared, although because of inadequate communication and cooperation between Israel and the United States important data-sharing remains to be made. By revealing the superiority of American weapons to their Soviet counterparts, Israel has helped the United States in two ways: by convincing many nations to buy U.S. rather than European or Soviet equipment, and by forcing the Soviet Union to divert funds from research and development of new systems to the replacement and upgrading of its own defenses, proven by Israel to be inadequate.

Were there closer connections between the armed services of the two countries, both would gain much. The Marine complex in Beirut was unconscionably defenseless and open to terrorist attack, even after a similar attack on the U.S. Embassy earlier in the year. Had the Marines talked more with the Israelis a few minutes down the road in a well-fortified camp, scores of them might not have died. Israel has contributed to the defense of U.S. interests in the region in the past; it is to the advantage of the United States to encourage further cooperation.

Israel has been forced to perfect its military to the point at which in local arenas it is a match for anyone. This was achieved to deter and defeat Arab attacks, but Israel's strength need not be limited to this purpose. By implementing certain measures of strategic cooperation, the United States can, in effect, receive the benefits of a dedicated and extremely capable modern army, navy, and air force with none of the costs of creating them. In this lies the essential logic of cooperation: instead of spending billions of dollars trying to create an Arab ally of military significance (Iran, Saudi Arabia, Egypt, Jordan, etc.) where the will and preconditions for an effective force do not exist, the United States can, in Israel, get that ally cheaply and permanently.

WITH the benefits of cooperation so clear, the burden of proof lies on those who oppose it. The argument against cooperation runs as follows: the Arabs don't like Israel, therefore if the United States is too close to Israel the Arabs will retaliate by embargoing oil, or raising prices, or tilting toward the Soviet Union. It is a political argument, not a strategic one, and it is both morally and pragmatically incorrect. To deny benefits to ourselves and to a staunch democratic ally simply because other allies threaten to hurt us is to submit to economic blackmail and to appease. It is also shortsighted, for the record of American Middle Eastern policy shows that far from hurting our relations with the Arabs, close ties to Israel may even have raised our standing in the Arab world.

The growth of U.S. military and economic aid to Israel during the 1970s paralleled an unprecedented rise in American influence in the Middle East. This alone should put to rest the canard that involvement with Israel hurts us with the Arabs. To the extent that we can persuade Israel to make certain concessions, we demonstrate that the Arabs may be able to get part of what they want through peaceful negotiations, not war. Our ability to broker the Egyptian-Israel Peace Treaty and, in the eyes of the Arab world, to "deliver" the Sinai have been largely responsible for our alliance with Egypt. Even if involvement were to hurt us, it would be involvement such as arms sales and military aid—things which we do for Israel, not things (like basing, data-sharing, etc.) which Israel could do for us.

The argument against cooperation with Israel assumes that non-cooperation wins favor which would not be granted otherwise. What has the United States gained from its non-cooperation? Jordanian entry into the Camp David negotiations? Saudi Arabian pressure on the PLO to allow Jordan to negotiate? Saudi Arabian exertion of its economic power to further U.S. interests? Syrian withdrawal from Lebanon? PLO recognition of Israel?

Did Moslem terrorists refrain from blowing up the Marine complex because we refrained from cooperating with and talking to the Israelis down the road?

As long as the United States disdains the benefits of strategic cooperation with Israel, so long will we suffer from misguided perceptions of our national interest. As Steven Spiegel has written:

> In Shakespeare's *King Lear* the monarch foolishly relinquishes his kingdom to two daughters who flatter him with expansive but false promises of everlasting devotion while he disowns his one faithful daughter, Cordelia, because she will not stoop to pretenses. The analogy with America's current Middle East policy is compelling. Countries like Saudi Arabia and Kuwait, which offer friendship but will not cooperate with U.S. defense or diplomatic efforts, are regarded as crucial allies, whereas Israel—which offers facilities and services—is progressively treated as a pariah, a candidate for economic sanctions and political alienation. King Lear destroyed his life, his family, and his kingdom because he could not judge between friend and foe. The moral for the United States is obvious.

Why Nonalignment Failed

Fareed R. Zakaria

NEW DELHI, the capital of India, hosted the largest-ever gathering of heads of state and government in the first week of March this year. The seventh Nonaligned summit had all the pomp and splendor one expects, all the impassioned rhetoric one hears endlessly and little, if any substantive action. On the eve of the event, *The Times of India* commented: "Nonalignment survives on the diet of rhetoric, simulated self righteousness and excitement; and this diet will be available in plenty in Delhi in the next few days. We ourselves are among the great talkers of the world, a good Indian being by definition a highly articulate Indian."

'Nonalignment' officially began September 6, 1961, at the first summit in Belgrade. The concept of international neutrality had been fermenting in the minds of the leaders of many newly liberated states much earlier and had been voiced by Jawaharlal Nehru, the first Indian Prime Minister, in the late 1940's. Although in 1955 an Afro-Asian conference of states was held in Bangdung, Indonesia, it was at Belgrade that the three titans of the movement, Tito of Yugoslavia, Nehru of India and Nasser of Egypt, set nonalignment on its feet. In an article in *Foreign Affairs* years later Nehru wrote:

> "Nonalignment has become a summary description of this policy of friendship to all nations, uncompromised by any military pacts. This was not due to any indifference to issues that arose, but rather a desire to judge them by ourselves, in full freedom and without any preconceived partisan bias."

Twenty-five countries were represented at the five-day Belgrade Conference, which produced a 27-point declaration and an appeal to the superpowers to "suspend war preparations" and "make contact in order to avert imminent conflict."

The Western world's initial reaction to this attempt to circumvent the rigid bipolar global system was one of shock and in many cases anger. "Nonalignment is immoral!" argued John Foster Dulles, for whom the world was divided between God and Satan. His fear was confirmed by a general sense of anti-West bias within the movement. Even though Dulles' view had a certain political validity, it did not capture the reality of the situation. Nonalignment developed out of the rising tensions of the cold war. It was a reaction against the split between the World War II allies and was caused by an indifference to the reasons for the split.

Fareed R. Zakaria, '86, grew up in India.

But more important than these factors was the fact that neutrality was a product of decolonization. Almost every country in the movement had been under imperial rule or had been made to feel a sense of insecurity by imperialism. It was natural that in their search for equality these countries would apply pressure on the imperial powers. Even though independence may have been achieved years before, the legacies of colonialism (old treaties, multi-national corporations, etc.) haunted fiercely nationalistic governments. It was, thus, inevitable that the first phase of nonalignment would have an anti-West bias. The paranoia of 'losing' countries to Communism should not have been confused with newly decolonized countries breaking their dependence on the West (or at least trying to, since it is impossible really to be independent of the West).

THE 1960's were marked by a profound change in the pattern of international relations. The rigid bipolar cold war abated. Countries within the two blocs became more independent and the superpowers themselves began making attempts at rapprochement. But this period, marked by Kruschev's "detente," did not lead to a lessening of tensions in the world. In fact it was marked by the growth of disturbances, conflicts and upheavals, particularly in the Third World. The ability of superpowers to influence their allies and other less powerful states did not grow with their increasing military might. America was forced to go through much of the agony of Vietnam without the moral or military support of her allies. Russia had little active help from her satellites when the Sino-Soviet split occurred. And the Middle East problem is a continuing example of the superpowers' inability to influence events as they used to.

This weakening of the two alliances is best seen in what has been called the most important international issue of that decade: China's new claim as an independent power. Nonalignment had grown out of bipolarity, but now a triangular system developed. The global alliance structure changed fundamentally. The nonaligned countries did not prosper from these new developments. The reality of detente and the instability caused by the new power grouping led to many conflicts within their own borders. (India-China 1961, coup d'etats in Ghana and Indonesia, etc.)

A popular view circulating in the West during the 1960's was that because the cold war was ending and there would no longer be rigid alignments, neutrality was

becoming irrelevant. This was a naive attempt to dismiss nonalignment that rested on a blind and misplaced faith in detente. But there was a measure of truth in the assessment. Tito realized this in 1963 when he said at the U.N. General Assembly:

"Nonalignment is changing, both in quantitative and in qualitative terms, and is transforming itself into a general movement for peace . . . ."

This marked the change, and in many ways, the decline of the movement. The attempt to mediate superpower conflicts ended. It has been inspired by a desire to gain tactical advantages from the two-superpower configuration. A difficult task at any time, under the new global uncertainties, this became a diplomatic impossibility. The second goal of the nonalignment movement, its self-assumed role as conscience-keeper of the world, now became more focal. This view sprang from the strange notion that there was something intrinsic about small states that made them morally superior to large ones.

There were three geo-political reasons for this change. The detente of the 1960's ended the extreme tensions and hostilities of the Cold War, though it did little else. Regional wars caused either disunity or confusion in the movement. (When China invaded India in 1962 the nonaligned countries decided not to take sides. This caused India to lose interest in the organization for some time.) Lastly, China's appearance on the scene created the Orwellian spectre of a world divided among three major powers, constantly at war, with alliances shifting continuously. There was, moreover, a problem within the neutral countries themselves that was more central to the decline of nonalignment. The 'sixties saw the rise of a second generation of Third World leaders who were forced to deal with problems that nonalignment could not hope to combat—poverty, population explosion, inflation, and unemployment. The idealism of the first generation of freedom-fighters seemed irrelevant in the face of the real problems of the economy and political stability. A foreign policy dictated by the desire for total independence no longer made much sense.

From the beginning, the post-war period was characterized by an intense desire for accelerated economic growth. This desire was even greater in those countries, newly liberated, that perceived themselves to be far behind the West economically. Nonalignment did almost nothing to solve this problem. One of the major practical hopes of the movement was that neutrality would enable countries to get aid from both superpower blocs. Nowhere did this occur except in India and Egypt, and in both of these countries mutual aid was erratic and rarely simultaneous.



BY the 1970's the movement had degenerated to at best a foreign policy tactic and at worst a forum for invective. At the 1979 Nonaligned Summit in Havana, Cuba tried to introduce its own breed of nonalignment —natural alliance with the U.S.S.R. What is amazing is that some scholars marvel that the movement was able to withstand this attempt. It is hardly a wonder that the nonaligned conference refused to align itself with one of the superpowers, thereby contradicting the essence of its own existence.

The problems of nonalignment are many. First it is completely unclear as to who is really nonaligned. Today a country can receive free arms from one of the superpowers, have joint military exercises with that superpower's troops and still be considered nonaligned for lack of a formal military pact. Cuba, Cambodia, and Pakistan are the most obvious examples of members of dubious independence. This heterogeneity causes other complications. A major weakness of the movement is its almost total failure to work within itself. With so many different countries, unity is hard to preserve. The nonalignment movement is so broad that it embraces nations which differ on virtually everything apart from official neutrality. Regional enemies are present, economically diverse nations are present, politically different nations are present. There is no common denominator to serve as a basis for concerted action. Unity within the body is impossible unless conflicting interests are willint to accept compromise. But it is especially difficult for poor countries to sacrifice present gains for future benefits. As a result, no one is asked to sacrifice anything. Negotiations simply collect everybody's demands and present them—almost always to the West. Almost no attempts to cooperate with each other are made, but the West is always presented with a long shopping list.

What power, then, does the nonaligned movement have if it is so weak and ineffective? Its weaknesses are similar to those of the U.N., and so its strengths are also similar. International opinion still matters, and the nonaligned countries represent a very large number of nations of the world. They can make things awkward for the superpowers and sometimes pressure them into altering their policies. For real success, however, the movement would have to be discriminating in choosing its members, creating a smaller group that could work together effectively. The fact that these nations will differ politically, economically, socially, and in their interests is a great problem, although if more were willing to compromise the problem might be lessened. Unity is even more important for success and even more difficult to achieve. When the Western alliance, with all its common interests, seems so fragile today, what can one expect from the nonaligned countries? One sees, then, the tragic contradictions of the nonaligned movement. To be effective it would have to change its size, shape, and attitudes —a practical impossibility in today's world.

Del Monico Hatter

"Hats and Caps For All Occasions"
53 ELM STREET • 787-4086



SAFARI HAT

Running Start

EXCELLENT SELECTION • KNOWLEDGEABLE STAFF

JUST IN!

new balance 460 (men's and women's)

PEGASUS NIKE

We carry DIADORA Tennis Shoes!

NEW HAVEN
93 WHITNEY AVE.
865-6244

MADISON
250 BOSTON POST RD.
245-0523

HOURS: 10-6 MONDAY-FRIDAY / 10-5 SATURDAY

Listen to what people are saying about the *Yale Political Monthly:*

"It's a very clean, bright and intellectually stimulating magazine."
Thomas Winship
Editor-in-Chief
The Boston Globe

"The Yale Political Monthly is one of the finest undergraduate publications in America today."
Irving Kristol
Editor-in-Chief
The Public Interest

"The most amazing and outrageous and interesting journal in America."

—William F. Buckley, Jr.



The White House gets it . . . so do members of the Cabinet and Congress . . . and you should too, that is . . .

. . . if you'd love to give a hot foot to the likes of General Jaruzelski . . . the entire Politburo . . . Betty Friedan, Ralph Nader, and Billy Graham . . . Tip O'Neill and Howard Baker . . . and every posturing, pompous, Third-World diplomat . . . and then watch what happens.

. . . if you want the very best writing of such luminaries as Tom Wolfe, Malcolm Muggeridge, Ben J. Wattenberg, Ernest van den Haag, Tom Bethell, George Will, Hugh Kenner, Michael Novak, Taki, Walter E. Williams, and the **Spectator**'s founder and editor-in-chief, syndicated columnist R. Emmett Tyrrell, Jr.

. . . if you're interested in knowing the gut, history-changing issues of the day months in advance of their making the national press and network news.

For example, long before the P.R. firm of Reagan, Regan, Kemp, Roth and Stockman stuck the electorate's toe in the hot socket of Supply-Side Economics, the scheme's big daddy, George Gilder, was discussing it in depth in the pages of **The American Spectator.** Long before "Yellow Rain" in Afghanistan and Cambodia hit the front pages and editorial columns, **Spectator** readers were experts on the subject. The liveliest, nastiest debate on Nixon, Kissinger, and the destruction of Cambodia took place in these pages between William Shawcross and Henry Kissinger's chief researcher. And Margaret Thatcher's high male-hormone count was openly discussed long before the Falklands crisis.

In short, **The American Spectator** is where the action is! And you're invited to get in on it and savor it!

What they say:

The Washington Post: ". . . Washington's new "in" magazine.

Time Magazine: ". . . a (monthly) 40-page compendium of essays, satires, diatribes as well as acid-etched reviews of books, movies, and saloons (recent recommendation: Delisa's Bungalow Beer Garden in South St. Louis). The **Spectator**'s list of contributors reads like a Who's Who of the American Right and Center. Among them are Buckley, **Public Interest** co-editor Irving Kristol, Harvard Government Professor James Q. Wilson, Senator Daniel Patrick Moynihan and social theorist Sidney Hook."

Send today for a Low-Cost No-Risk Trial!

THE AMERICAN SPECTATOR
P.O. Box 1969, Bloomington, IN 47402

Open my trial subscription to **The American Spectator** (eight giant, tabloid-sized issues) conveniently delivered right to me.

☐ Check for $11.95 enclosed. In return for my prepayment send me two additional issues (10 for the price of 8). Full refund is guaranteed if I don't like the first issue.

☐ Bill me later for $11.95 (sorry, no additional issues; only 8). If I don't like my first issue, I'll write "cancel" across the invoice, return it to you, and owe nothing.

Name _____

Address _____

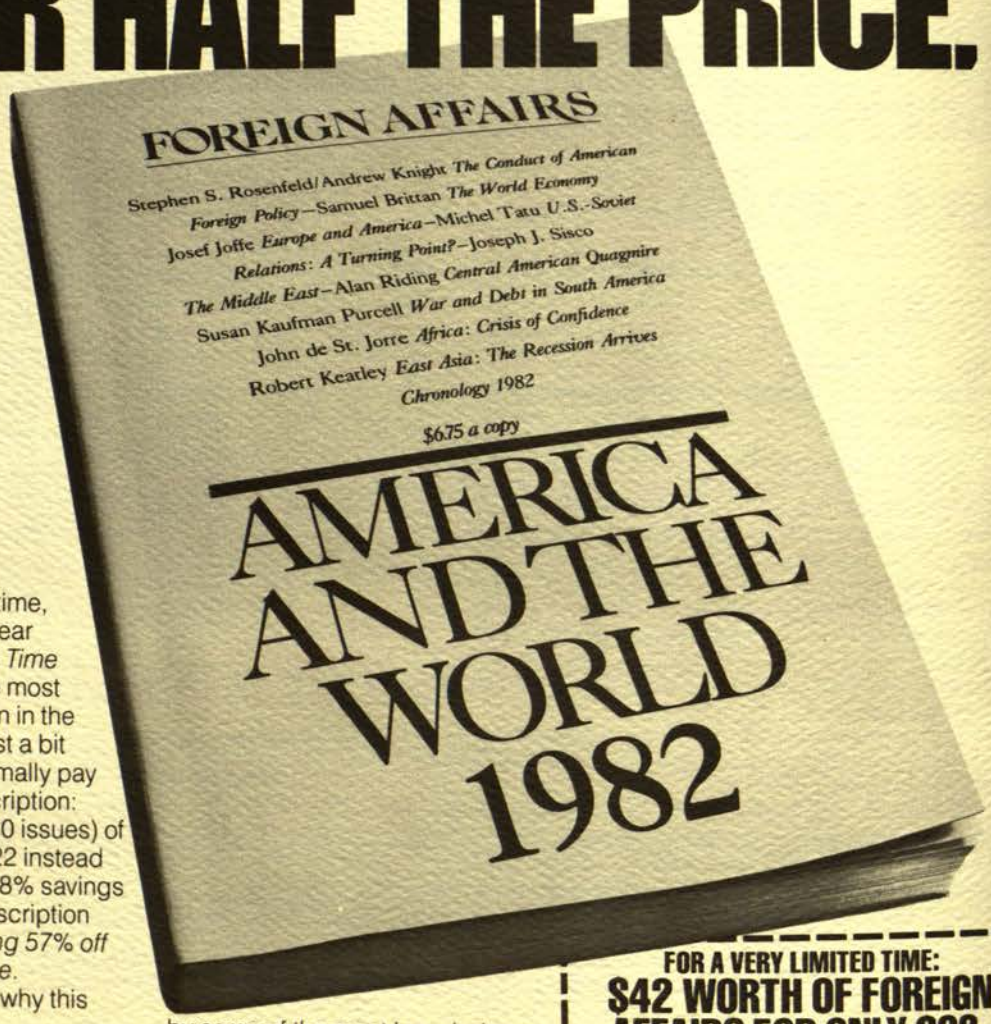
City _____

State _____ Zip _____

Canadian and foreign subscribers, please add $4 for postage.

3NEB

GET THE WHOLE WORLD FOR HALF THE PRICE.



Now, for a limited time, we'll sell you a two-year subscription to what *Time* magazine calls "The most influential publication in the United States" for just a bit more than you'd normally pay for a one-year subscription:

That's two years (10 issues) of *Foreign Affairs* for $22 instead of $42—an almost 48% savings over the regular subscription price *and a whopping 57% off the single issue price.*

(You can see now why this offer is limited.)

And to make this unprecedented bargain even sweeter, we'll begin your subscription with the 1982 edition of our internationally famous *"America and the World"* annual. The issue that gives you the world. Literally.

While the Spring, Summer, Fall and Winter editions of *Foreign Affairs* tend to deal with particular issues, or with specific parts of the world, *America and the World* presents a global overview, an international summing up, a world wide analysis of the year just past, with implications for the year just begun.

These are brand new articles, written especially for this issue by some of the most knowledgeable and respected political, economic, military and business analysts in the world.

Many of our subscribers feel that *America and the World* alone is worth the entire subscription price. That it's indispensable.

We agree that it's indispensable. As is every issue of Foreign Affairs, we think.

And now, at almost half off the regular subscription price, we think it's irresistible as well.

But remember, this offer will end very soon. So fill out the coupon now, while it's in front of you, and get it in the mail today.

FOR A VERY LIMITED TIME:

$42 WORTH OF FOREIGN AFFAIRS FOR ONLY $22.

(NEW SUBSCRIBERS ONLY)

Please send me two years (10 issues) of Foreign Affairs, a $42 value, for only $22. I understand that I may cancel at any time and receive a full refund for all unmailed copies. (Please allow 6-8 weeks for delivery of your first issue.) Add $6.00 per year postage outside U.S.

☐ I prefer one year for only $12.85 (a better than 40% savings)

☐ Payment enclosed ☐ Bill me

Charge my ☐ American Express ☐ MasterCard ☐ Visa for ☐ 1 year ☐ 2 years

INTERBANK NO. (required for MasterCard) _____ SIGNATURE _____

CHARGE CARD NO. _____ EXPIRATION DATE _____

NAME (please print) _____

ADDRESS _____

CITY _____ STATE _____ ZIP _____

FOREIGN AFFAIRS Subscriber Service 58 East 68 Street New York, NY 10021

5140

THE PEOPLE WHO INFLUENCE FOREIGN AFFAIRS READ FOREIGN AFFAIRS.